



SAMSKR̥TASUBODHINĪ

A
Sanskrit
Primer



Madhav
M.
Deshpande

Michigan Papers on South and Southeast Asian Studies
No. 47

CENTERS FOR SOUTH AND SOUTHEAST ASIAN STUDIES
UNIVERSITY OF MICHIGAN
2007

LESSON 32

Compounds

Sanskrit nominal expressions can in general be divided into two broad categories, primary and secondary nominals. The primary nominals are those which are not derived from verb roots through some kind of affixation. Secondary nominals are of various different kinds, i.e. **Taddhitānta**, **Kṛdanta** and **Samāsa**. The processes involved in the derivation of these three types of secondary nouns may be best represented in the following way:

Taddhitānta **Noun₁ + Taddhita-affix → Noun₂**

For example:

वृक्ष + त्व → वृक्षत्व "treeness"

Kṛdanta **Verb root + Kṛt-affix → Verbal Noun**

For example:

गम् + तृ → गन्तृ "goer"

Samāsa **Noun₁ + Noun₂ → Noun₃**

For example:

राजन् + पुरुष → राजपुरुष

The last category of secondary nouns is the category called compounds. Examples of compounds abound in English, e.g. book-shelf, pot-belly, white-collar, door-bell. In Sanskrit, there is much greater variety of compounds and the length of compounds grows to an astonishing degree in the late classical language. In general, in a compound, two or more nominals are fused together to form a new nominal. There are no case-endings after each member of compound, and the relationships between these members need to be figured out either on the basis of the conventional use of these compounds, or the context. A 'book-case' can only be a case

for books, and not a case made by books, but 'man-made' can only be something made by man and not something made for a man. Thus, the question of why the members of a given compound are related only in a certain way can be answered by referring to their conventional association. Thus, the compounds represent conventional relationships between words which can be conveyed even without the help of case-endings. Anything non-conventional cannot be easily expressed by compounds. Thus, compounds express generic relationships, i.e. a 'book-case' refers to a case for books in general, not this or that specific book, or books. If one needs to say, "I want a case which will hold these specific large red books", then the word 'book-case' may not convey all the specificity. Hence, compounds are used mainly when one wishes only to deal with the generic relationship. If one says, "I drink goat-milk", he does not refer to any specific goat. In Sanskrit, the simple compounds can be put together to form larger units, e.g. 'home-made' and 'Cheddar-cheese', in Sanskrit, could be turned into 'home-made-cheddar-cheese'. An expression like 'home-made-cheddar-cheese-fed-fat-little-boy-seen-book' would be normal for Sanskrit to refer to a book seen by a fat little boy fed on home-made cheddar cheese. How does one know what the internal constituents are? Why must one consider 'home-made' and 'cheddar-cheese' as the sub-units rather than 'made-cheddar'? The answer is simply that 'made-cheddar' makes no sense. Thus, one assumes that in using compounds, the user intends to convey culturally defined predictable associations, and then look for such associations. In short, in order to understand the compounds, you must know what they are supposed to mean! Generally, only the final member of the compound takes a case-ending, though there are a few compounds with frozen case-endings on the non-final members.

In the Sanskrit grammatical tradition, a compound is called समास, and a paraphrase of the compound in a phrase is called विग्रह. Generally, one can offer a paraphrase using the member-words of a compound, e.g., रामकृष्णौ < रामः च कृष्णः च; नीलकण्ठः < नीलः कण्ठः यस्य

सः; नृपभार्या < नृपस्य भार्या. In a few exceptional cases, the tradition says that certain compounds cannot be thus paraphrased, because their conventional meaning is entirely different from the meaning of the components, e.g., कृष्णसर्पः means "a deadly cobra", rather than a black (कृष्ण) snake (सर्प). Therefore, paraphrasing this compound with कृष्णः सर्पः does not provide equivalent meaning. These compounds are called अविग्रह-समासs, compounds which have no paraphrase. Some compounds can be paraphrased by using words other than words that appear in the compound. This happens when a compound contains a bound-form, a form which can occur in a compound, but is not independently usable. For example, the compound उपकृष्णम् is paraphrased with कृष्णस्य समीपम्, rather than using the word उप. Such a compound is called अ-स्व-पद-विग्रह-समास "a compound which can be paraphrased by using words other than its own members". Both the above mentioned types, compounds which cannot be paraphrased and those which can be paraphrased by using other words are together called नित्य-समासs "obligatory compounds", i.e. these compounds do not freely alternate with a corresponding phrase. Other compounds, which can be paraphrased by using their own members and freely alternate with such paraphrases are called अनित्य-समासs "non-obligatory compounds".

Compounds are first divided into four large categories, each of which have further sub-divisions. These four large categories are, द्वन्द्व, अव्ययीभाव, तत्पुरुष and बहुव्रीहि. For the sake of simplicity, we can classify these four types based on the relative prominence of a particular member of the compound, represented by X and Y in the compound XY.

द्वन्द्व (XY)

Both X and Y are equally prominent in a Dvandva. Consider 'pots-n-pans'. In Sanskrit, this would look like 'pot-pans'. Here, both members are of equal value, and the compound represents their cumulative value. There are two types of Dvandva compounds,

e.g. इतरेतर-द्वन्द्व and समाहार-द्वन्द्व. In इतरेतर-द्वन्द्व type, the gender of the compound is determined by the last member, while the number is the cumulative number of all members put together, e.g., रामकृष्णौ, रामकृष्णगोविन्दाः, रामसीते (f), सीतारामौ (m). A compound such as रामकृष्णौ is paraphrased by रामश्च कृष्णश्च. In the समाहार-द्वन्द्व type, the collective unity or the group-unity is the focal point, rather than the number of the items listed. Thus, in this type, the compound is always in neuter, singular, e.g., पाणिपादम् (hands-n-feet), अहिनकुलम् (snake-n-mongoose). For body parts, elements of an army, for those who are mutual enemies, etc., we have to have a समाहार-द्वन्द्व compound. A compound such as पाणिपादम् is paraphrased by पाणी च पादौ च एतेषां समाहारः.

अव्ययीभाव (Xy)

The first member, X, is prominent, and the compound is an indeclinable, adverbial word. The first member of an अव्ययीभाव is generally an indeclinable particle or preposition. This word is the head of the compound. The second word modifies this preposition or particle. Essentially, this compound represents a prepositional or an adverbial phrase reduced to a compound, e.g., उपगङ्गम् (near the Ganges) < गङ्गायाः समीपम्; निर्मक्षिकम् (without flies) < मक्षिकाणाम् अभावः. A large number of अव्ययीभाव compounds need to be paraphrased by using other words. Consider the following examples of अव्ययीभाव :

अधिहरि < हरौ “in Hari”

अनुविष्णु < विष्णोः पश्चात् “after Viṣṇu”

यथाशक्ति < शक्तिम् अनतिक्रम्य “in accordance with his ability,
not exceeding his ability”

सतृणम् < तृणम् अपि अपरित्यज्य “without leaving even a blade of
grass”

पारेगङ्गम् < गङ्गायाः पारे “on the other bank of Ganges”

बहिर्वनम् < वनाद् बहिः “outside the forest”

आमुक्ति < मुक्तेः आ “until salvation”

तत्पुरुष (xY)

The second member, Y, is prominent. The gender and the number of a तत्पुरुष compound is determined by the gender and the number of the last member. In English, the word ‘book-case’ would be an example of तत्पुरुष. A ‘book-case’ is after all a case, and hence the word ‘case’ is the prominent member or the head of the compound. In ‘book-cases’, the plurality is dictated by the word ‘case’ and not by the word ‘book’. The तत्पुरुष compound is traditionally subdivided into a number of types, depending on the relationship of the first word to the second word, and depending upon the type of the words used. The following is a list of these subtypes with illustrations:

विभक्ति-तत्पुरुष (Case-Tatpuruṣa)

Accusative तत्पुरुष

कृष्णश्रितः < कृष्णं श्रितः “Resorting to Krishna”

Instrumental तत्पुरुष

हरित्रातः < हरिणा त्रातः “Rescued by Hari”

Dative तत्पुरुष

कुण्डलहिरण्यम् < कुण्डलाय हिरण्यम् “gold for an ear-ring”

Ablative तत्पुरुष

चोरभयम् < चोरात् भयम् “fear from/of a thief”

Genitive तत्पुरुष

रामदासः < रामस्य दासः “Rāma’s servant”

Locative तत्पुरुष

कर्मकुशलः < कर्मणि कुशलः “adept in work”

नञ्-तत्पुरुष (Negative तत्पुरुष)

अब्राह्मणः < न ब्राह्मणः “one who is not a Brahmin, non-Brahmin”

अदृष्टम् < न दृष्टम् “not seen, unseen”

अनिच्छा < न इच्छा “lack of desire”

If a word begins with a vowel, then the initial negation indicator is अन्, instead of अ.

कु-तत्पुरुष (तत्पुरुष with कु as its first member)

कुपुरुषः < कुत्सितः पुरुषः “detestable person”

गति-तत्पुरुष (तत्पुरुष with a गति ‘particle’ as its first member)

In Sanskrit grammar, a whole range of adverbials, indeclinables, and particles are given the collective name गति.

अनुगम्य < अनु+गत्वा “having followed”

Gerunds with preverbs are considered to be गति-तत्पुरुष compounds.

अलंकृत्य < अलम् + कृत्वा “having adorned”

पटपटाकृत्य < पटपटा + कृत्वा “having made the sound पटपटा

प्रादि-तत्पुरुष (तत्पुरुष with प्र etc. as its first member)

In this category, traditionally one makes a compound using a participle prefixed with प्र etc. and then drops the participles. Traditionally, this type of compound is called a मध्यमपदलोपिन् compound, a compound with the deletion of the middle word. For instance:

प्राचार्यः < प्रगतः आचार्यः “Advanced teacher”

अपधर्मः < अपगतो धर्मः “Dharma gone down”

कर्मधारय (Nominative तत्पुरुष)

In this sub-category, generally an adjective is combined with a noun, e.g.,

नीलकमलम् < नीलम् कमलम् “a blue lotus”

Occasionally one finds two adjectives put together, e.g.,

श्वेतरक्तम् < श्वेतम् च रक्तं च “(something which is) white and red”.

This example above must be carefully distinguished from द्वन्द्व compounds. Here, both the words refer to the same thing, while in a द्वन्द्व compound, we add more than one referent. Similarly, one can combine into a कर्मधारय compound two participles to reflect the sequence of the respective actions:

पीतप्रतिबद्धः < आदौ पीतः पश्चात् प्रतिबद्धः “one who drank first and was tied later” (referring to a calf).

Other types of कर्मधारय compounds involve poetic expressions of comparison and poetic superimposition:

घनश्यामः < घनः इव श्यामः “one who is as dark as a cloud”
Here the standard of comparison (उपमान) appears as the first member and the shared characteristic is indicated by the second member.

नरसिंहः < नरः सिंहः इव “a man who is like a lion”
Here the standard of comparison appears as the second member.

चरणकमलम् < चरणम् कमलम् इव “lotus-like foot”

कन्यारत्नम् < कन्या एव रत्नम् “the girl is herself a jewel”
This is a case of poetic superimposition. Another example of this kind is:

मुखचन्द्रः < मुखम् एव चन्द्रः “the face itself is the moon”

शाकपार्थिवः < शाकप्रियः पार्थिवः “a king who likes vegetables”. Such examples are traditionally considered to be compounds with deleted middle words (मध्यमपदलोपिन्), since one needs to insert another word in order to properly paraphrase the compound.

द्विगु-समास (कर्मधारय with a number word as the first member).

Semantically, a द्विगु-समास functions like a समाहार-द्वन्द्व, in that it refers to a collectivity (समाहार), and therefore it occurs in singular. For example:

त्रिभुवनम् < त्रयाणां भुवनानां समाहारः “a group of three worlds”

पञ्चगवम् < पञ्चानां गवां समाहारः “a group of five cows”

त्रिलोकी < त्रयाणां लोकानां समाहारः “a group of three worlds”

सप्ताहः < सप्तानाम् अह्नां समाहारः “a group of seven days”

उपपद-तत्पुरुष “तत्पुरुष compounds with bound expressions”

Normally, members of a compound are independently usable words. However, sometimes we find expressions which can occur only in compounds, under certain restrictions of co-occurrence with other words. Consider the following examples:

कुम्भकारः < कुम्भं करोति “maker of pots”.

In this compound, the expression -कार < कृ “to make” is a bound form. It can be used only if it is preceded in a compound by a word denoting the object of that action. Thus, one cannot paraphrase this compound with कुम्भस्य कारः. This also raises an interesting question. Since, the only likely paraphrase is with a finite verb, e.g. कुम्भं करोति, this compound is traditionally considered to be an accusative compound, even though the translation “maker of pots” might suggest this to be a genitive compound. Contrast the compound स्मरहरः < स्मरस्य हरः “remover of cupid”. This is a genitive compound because हर, unlike -कार, is a free form. Consider the following examples:

मनुजः < मनोः जायते “born from Manu”, “a human being”

वेदविद् < वेदान् वेत्ति “knower of Vedas”

हृच्छयः < हृद्-शयः < हृदि शेते “lies in the heart”, “love”

अन्तरिक्षगः < अन्तरिक्षे गच्छति “goes in the sky”, “bird”

अण्डजः < अण्डात् जायते “born from an egg”, “bird”

लोककृत् < लोकं करोति “maker of the world”, “creator”

Exceptional cases of तत्पुरुषs

Consider the following cases:

प्राप्तजीविकः < प्राप्तः जीविकाम् “one who has found livelihood”

In this example, the gender of the compound is not determined by the last member, e.g., जीविका (f), but either by the first member, or by what the word refers to, e.g., a person. This would on the face of it make this compound more like a बहुव्रीहि. However, traditionally these compounds are considered to be तत्पुरुषs. This is based most likely on the accent pattern of these words. In general terms, the तत्पुरुष compounds are accented on the last syllable, while in a बहुव्रीहि, the first member retains its original accent. Thus, the traditional classification of compounds is not based solely on semantic considerations, but also takes into account accents. These accents died in the later classical language. Consider a few more examples which seem to violate the normal semantic pattern of a तत्पुरुष -

पूर्वकायः < पूर्व कायस्य “fore-part of the body”

मध्याह्नः < मध्यम् अह्नः “middle of the day”

अतिमालः < अतिक्रान्तः मालाम् “surpassing a garland”

निष्कौशाम्बिः < निष्क्रान्तः कौशाम्ब्याः “departed from Kauśāmbī”

बहुव्रीहि (xy)

In a बहुव्रीहि, neither X nor Y are prominent, but the compound as a whole has an outside referent, Z. Consider the example in English, 'Pot-belly'. This word does not always refer to a pot-like belly as such, but can also refer to a person whose belly is like a pot. Neither 'pot' nor 'belly' individually refer to this person, but the compound as whole refers to this person. "Egg-head" and "pea-brain" may be better examples of this kind, since one never says "he has an egg-head". Consider the Sanskrit example नीलकण्ठः which refers to Śiva. नील 'blue' and कण्ठ 'neck' individually do not refer to Śiva, but the compound नीलकण्ठ refers to 'he whose neck is blue'. If the compound नीलकण्ठ referred only to 'the blue neck', then it would be an example of a कर्मधारय compound. The gender, number and the case of a बहुव्रीहि compound is determined not by the last member of the compound, but by the external referent. Consider the following examples of बहुव्रीहि :

प्राप्तोदकः (ग्रामः) < प्राप्तम् उदकं यं सः "that (village) to which the water reached"

जितकामः (शिवः) < जितः कामो येन सः "he by whom Cupid was defeated"

उपहतपशुः (शिवः) < उपहतः पशुः यस्मै सः "he to whom an animal was offered (in sacrifice)"

उद्धृतौदना (स्थाली) < उद्धृतः ओदनः यस्याः सा "that (pot, dish) from which rice has been picked up"

पीताम्बरः (विष्णुः) < पीतम् अम्बरम् यस्य सः "He whose garment is yellow"

वीरपुरुषः (ग्रामः) < वीराः पुरुषाः यस्मिन् सः "that village in which there are brave men". Contrast this usage with a कर्मधारय usage of the same word which refers to simply a 'brave man'.

चक्रपाणिः (विष्णुः) < चक्रं पाणौ यस्य सः “he who has a discus in his hand”

कमलनयनः (पुरुषः) < कमले इव नयने यस्य सः “he whose eyes are like lotus-flowers”

यशोधनः (पुरुषः) < यशः एव धनम् यस्य सः “he for whom fame is the sole wealth”

अब्राह्मणः (ग्रामः) < न ब्राह्मणाः यस्मिन् सः “that village in which there are no Brahmins”. Contrast this with the तत्पुरुष usage of the same word in the sense “non-Brahmin”.

सशिष्यः (गुरुः) < शिष्यैः सह यः सः “he who is with his disciples”

मध्यमपदलोपिन् बहुव्रीहि compounds: In some examples of बहुव्रीहि compounds, one needs to add another word in the paraphrase which does not exist in the compound. Traditionally, this is labelled as a compound with the deletion of the middle word. Consider the two examples:

कमलनयना (कन्या) < कमले इव नयने यस्याः सा “she whose eyes are like lotus-flowers”

मृगनयना (कन्या) < मृगस्य नयने इव नयने यस्याः सा “she whose eyes are like the eyes of a deer”

Superficially, these two compounds look similar, but the second compound cannot be interpreted to mean “she whose eyes are like a deer”. Thus, it becomes a compound with a deleted middle word.

Compounds with frozen case-endings (अलुक्-समास)

Occasionally, one comes across compounds in Sanskrit where the case-ending on the non-final member is still retained. Such compounds perhaps represent an intermediate stage of development of a phrase being turned into a compound. Such compounds are not productive compounds, i.e. one cannot make new compounds of this type. Consider the following examples:

वनेचरः < वने चरति "One who wanders in the forest"

पङ्केरुहम् < पङ्के रोहति "That which grows in mud, lotus"

युधिष्ठिरः < युधि स्थिरः "Firm in battle"

दास्याःपुत्रः < दास्याः पुत्रः "Son of a slave woman"

The last expression appears as a compound only if used as an accusation, and not as a factual description.

Changes prompted by compounding:

Several words undergo specific changes in the process of compounding, and sometimes certain affixes are added to form a compound. Some of the common changes are given below:

1. The word महत्, when it is the first member of a compound, becomes महा-, e.g., महादेवः < महान् देवः "Great God."
2. The word अहन् 'day' at the end of a compound, generally becomes अह-, e.g., सप्ताहः < सप्तानाम् अहां समाहारः "group of seven days, a week". However, when it refers to a part of the day, it becomes अह्-, e.g., मध्याह्नः < मध्यम् अह्नः "mid-day".

3. The word रात्रि (f) becomes रात्रः (m), as in पूर्वरात्रः < पूर्व रात्रे: "first part of the night"; मध्यरात्रः < मध्यं रात्रे: "middle part of the night".
4. The word सखि (m) becomes सख, as in कृष्णसखः < कृष्णस्य सखा "Krishna's friend"; but न सखा > असखा.
5. The word राजन् (m) becomes राज as in परमराजः < परमः राजा "highest king."
6. The word पथिन् becomes पथः as in ग्रामपथः < ग्रामस्य पन्थाः "village-path".
7. अक्षि becomes अक्षः at the end of बहुव्रीहि compounds as in कमलाक्षः < कमले इव अक्षिणी यस्य सः "he whose eyes are like lotus flowers". In feminine, such compounds take the marker ई, e.g., कमलाक्षी "girl with lotus-like eyes."
8. The word पति at the end of compounds like नरपति "lord of people, king" follows the normal declension of कवि, and not the special declension of पति given in Lesson 18.
9. अस्मद् and युष्मद् are changed to मद् and त्वद् if they refer to singular referents: मत्पुत्रः < मम पुत्रः "my son," but अस्मद्गृहम् < अस्माकं गृहम् "our house." Also: त्वत्पुत्रः < तव पुत्रः "your son," but युष्मद्गृहम् < युष्माकं गृहम् "your house."

Larger compounds:

In Sanskrit, smaller compounds can be embedded into larger compounds, producing longer compounds. Such long compounds are very frequent in literary texts, providing frozen descriptions of an object or a person, while the flow of action is maintained through the use of participles and verbs. The relationships of sub-units within such large compounds to each other are recoverable from the context. To some extent, such structural relationships may be indicated by embedded bracketing patterns. A compound containing four members, A, B, C and D, could have numerous possible patterns, such as:

1. $[[A + B] + [C + D]]$
2. $[[[A + B] + C] + D]$
3. $[A + [B + [C + D]]]$
4. $[A + B + C + D]$

The above represent only a few possibilities. In a given case, generally only one combination makes sense, unless an author deliberately uses double-meaning. Consider the following examples:

वीरसेनसुतः < [[वीर + सेना] + सुत]
 “son of Virasena.”

Here the compound वीरसेनः [< वीरा सेना यस्य सः] is a बहुव्रीहि compound meaning “he whose army is brave”. This is a proper name of a king. This compound is then embedded into the next level to mean “Virasena’s son” [< वीरसेनस्य सुतः]. This larger compound is a तत्पुरुष compound. Thus a बहुव्रीहि has been embedded into a तत्पुरुष.

देवगन्धर्वमानुषोरगराक्षसाः <
 देव-गन्धर्व-मानुष-उरग-राक्षसाः
 < [देव + गन्धर्व + मानुष + [उरस् + ग] + राक्षस]
 “gods, Gandharvas, humans, snakes, and demons.”

This larger compound is a द्वन्द्व compound giving a list. One of the listed items, however, is a compound, e.g. उर-ग “chest-goer” = snake. This is a तत्पुरुष [< उरसा गच्छति].

हस्त्यश्वरथघोषः <
 हस्ति-अश्व-रथ-घोषः < [[हस्तिन् + अश्व + रथ] + [घोष]]

This compound means “the noise of elephants, horses and chariots”. Here, a द्वन्द्व compound is further embedded into a तत्पुरुष. In the late classical language, certain authors such as Bāṇa and Daṇḍin prided themselves on the use of long compounds. Consider the following example from Jayadeva’s *Gītagovinda* (1.4.1):

चन्दन-चर्चित-नील-कलेवर-पीत-वसन-वनमाली

Sandal-wood-smeared-blue-body-yellow-garment-forest-garland-possessing + Nom. Sg.

केलि-चलन्-मणि-कुण्डल-मण्डित-गण्ड-युगः स्मित-शाली

play-moving-jewel-ear-ornament-adorned-cheek-pair + Nom. Sg.
smile-habit + Nom. Sg.

“[Krishna] is wearing forest garlands, a yellow garment, and has his blue body smeared with the paste of Sandalwood. He is always smiling and his cheeks are adorned with jeweled ear-ornaments which move during his play.”

Exercises

- 1) Identify the specific type of the compound and provide a Sanskrit paraphrase.

काक-कूर्मौ

सुख-दुःखे

प्रियाप्रिये प्रिय-अ-प्रिये

इज्याध्ययनदानानि इज्या-अध्ययन-दानानि

अ-लोभः

काव्य-शास्त्र-विनोदः

भक्ष्य-भक्षक-प्रीतिः

पाश-बद्धः

काक-रक्षितः

गृहमार्गोद्यानानि गृह-मार्ग-उद्यानानि

व्याघ्र-भयम्

रक्त-केशः

सर्व-द्रव्याणि

मित्र-लाभः

भागीरथी-तटः

A crow and a turtle

Happiness and sorrow

Pleasant and unpleasant things

sacrifice, study and gifts

Non-greed

Entertainment in poetry and technical texts

Love between the eater and the eaten

tied with a rope

protected by the crow

Houses, streets and parks

Fear from a tiger

He whose hair is red

all things

Acquisition of friends

Bank of Bhāgīrathī

नर-पतिः
दयालु-हृदयः

महाधनः महत्-धनः
बहु-वीरः

शस्त्र-पाणिः

कृष्ण-भक्तः
विद्या-निपुणः

गो-पाल-बालः

भुक्तौदनः भुक्त-ओदनः
पुष्पित-वृक्षम्

कृशोदरी कृश-उदर-ई
हरि-हर-गुरुः
सखीगणावृता < सखी-गण-आवृता

वि-वर्ण-वदना

उन्मत्त-दर्शना

नरेश्वरः < नर-ईश्वरः
सत्य-व्रतः

Lord of people
He whose heart is compassionate
He who has great wealth
That village which has many heroes
He who has a weapon in his hand
Devotee of Krishna
Skilled in a branch of learning
One who is a cowherd and a child
He who has eaten rice (Forest) in which trees are in blossom
She who has a thin belly
Teacher of Hari and Hara
Surrounded by the flock of her friends
She whose face was colorless (= pale)
She whose appearance was crazy
Lord of men (= king)
He whose vow (व्रत n) is true

2) Translate the following into English. Identify the compounds in these sentences and analyse them.

१. मृतपुत्रस्य भूमिपतितं शरीरं दृष्ट्वा तज्जनन्यक्लिश्यत् ।
२. मया ईश्वरभक्तिः कृता ।
३. ईश्वरशक्त्या मृतजना अपि जीविष्यन्ति ।
४. काकखादितानि फलानि नाहमिच्छामि ।

५. अधनेभ्यो धनदानं कृत्वा नरपतिः महापुण्यमलभत ।
६. अश्वाः कूपजलं पिबन्तु ।
७. मुनिः सुखदुःखे न बोधति ।
८. रामकृष्णमाधवाः गच्छन्ति ।
९. अपण्डितो रामः संस्कृतं न पठति ।
१०. वनपतितसिंहहतगजमांसतुष्टः शृगालस्त्वम् ।
११. दासचोरितकनकं कुत्रास्ति?
१२. जितग्रामो लोकपतिर्जयतु ।
१३. पीतजलोऽयमश्वः ।
१४. नृपदासं मा तुद ।
१५. चिन्तितगजबलाः शृगाला उपगङ्गं धावन्ति ।
१६. प्रतिदिनं भर्तृपरित्यक्ता सा नारी रोदिति ।
१७. ग्रामदासा नृपगुणान् कथयन्तु ।
१८. फलभारश्रान्तोऽयमश्वः ।
१९. प्रासादगतो नृपपुत्रः दासभार्यां पश्यति ।
२०. नृपः शस्त्रबलं जानाति न शस्त्रबलम् ।

3) Write any five Sanskrit sentences of your own.

LESSON 33

Absolute constructions

Locative Absolute Construction

An absolute construction is a kind of clause which does not have a finite verb to hang on to. Even gerund clauses are sometimes called absolute clauses of a certain type, and gerunds are called absolutives. Such clauses normally do not stand by themselves, but are attached to other clauses. A locative absolute construction is a clause which indicates the time when some other event occurred: *y happened, when x happened*. The subordinate clause indicating the time of another action is represented in Sanskrit as a locative absolute clause. Consider the following sentence:

यदा सेनापतिर्हृतस्तदा सैनिकाः पलायन्त ।

“When the commander of the army was killed, the soldiers fled.” (पलायन्त < परा+अ+/अय्, past imperfect, with र > ल)

Here the main clause is तदा सैनिकाः पलायन्त “then the soldiers fled”. When did this event occur? That information is provided by the relative clause यदा सेनापतिर्हृतः “when the commander of the army was killed”. In the relative sentence above, we have a participle and a noun which the participle goes with. One can convert the यदा clause into a locative absolute by:

- dropping the words यदा and तदा
- by placing the noun and the participle in locative case.

Thus, we can have the following locative absolute construction:

सेनापतौ हते, सैनिकाः पलायन्त ।

“The commander being killed, the soldiers fled.”